Linear Algebra and Optimization

The answers here are for the problems in [Gallier and Quaintance, 2020]. They reflect my effort to answer them and in no way should be construed as the approved solutions for this book.

Chapter 2

Problem 2.1:

1. To prove that $(H, \cdot)$ is a group we must show that the following properties hold:

(1) **Closure**: if $A, B \in H$ then $A \cdot B \in H$. To show this note that any upper triangular matrix A has the property

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & a & b \\ 0 & 1 & c \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & a & b \\ d & 1 & c \\ e & f & 1 \end{bmatrix} \odot \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

where $\odot$ denotes the **Hadamard** product of two matrices and the first matrix is non-singular. In index notation we write this as

$$A_{ij} = a_{ij} \mathbb{1}_{j \geq i}$$

where $\mathbb{1}_{\text{statement}} = 1$ if the statement is true and zero otherwise. Then

$$\begin{aligned} (A \cdot B)_{ij} &= \sum_{k=1}^{n} A_{ik} B_{kj} = \sum_{k=1}^{n} a_{ik} b_{kj} \mathbb{1}_{k \geq i} \mathbb{1}_{j \geq k} \\ &= \sum_{k=1}^{n} a_{ik} b_{kj} \mathbb{1}_{j \geq i} = (a \cdot b)_{ij} \mathbb{1}_{j \geq i} \end{aligned}$$

and so, $A \cdot B \in H$.

(2) Since H is a subspace of the vector space of 3×3 matrices it inherits associativity and the identity element.

(3) The inverse A^{-1} of $A \in H$ must have the property

$$A \cdot A^{-1} = A^{-1} \cdot A = I, \quad A^{-1} \in H.$$

We note that, since we can write any uppper-triangular matrix as the Hadamard product of a standard matrix and an upper-triangular matrix of ones, then

$$(A \cdot A^{-1})_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^{n} a_{ik} a_{kj}^{-1} \mathbb{1}_{k \geq i} \mathbb{1}_{j \geq k} = \sum_{k=1}^{n} \delta_{ij} \mathbb{1}_{k \geq i} \mathbb{1}_{j \geq k} = \delta_{ij}$$

where $\delta_{ij} = 1$ if $i = j$ and zero otherwise. Therefore the inverse exists and is an element of H. The following explicit form of the inverse

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & a' & b' \\ 0 & 1 & c' \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

satisfies the diagonal and lower triangular conditions. For the upper triangular elements we must have

$$\begin{aligned} a' + a &= 0 \\ b' + ac' + b &= 0 \\ c' + c &= 0 \end{aligned}$$

and so

$$A^{-1} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -a & ac-b \\ 0 & 1 & -c \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

If $(H, \cdot)$ is abelian then $A \cdot B = B \cdot A$ or

$$(A \cdot B)_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^{n} a_{ik} b_{kj} \mathbb{1}_{k \geq i} \mathbb{1}_{j \geq k} = \mathbb{1}_{j \geq i} \sum_{k=1}^{n} a_{ik} b_{kj} = \mathbb{1}_{j \geq i} (a \cdot b)_{ij},$$
$$(B \cdot A)_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^{n} b_{ik} a_{kj} \mathbb{1}_{k \geq i} \mathbb{1}_{j \geq k} = \mathbb{1}_{j \geq i} \sum_{k=1}^{n} b_{ik} a_{kj} = \mathbb{1}_{j \geq i} (b \cdot a).$$

Since $a \cdot b \neq b \cdot a$ we conclude that H is not abelian.

2. If $a \in G_1$ then from the definition of e_1

$$\phi(ae_1) = \phi(a) \in G_2$$

and since ϕ is a homomorphism

$$\phi(ae_1) = \phi(a)\phi(e_1).$$

Hence

$$\phi(a)\phi(e_1) = \phi(a)$$

and we conclude that $\phi(e_1) = e_2$.

Since $aa^{-1} = e_1$

$$\phi(aa^{-1}) = \phi(a)\phi(a^{-1}) = \phi(e_1).$$

We have already shown that $\phi(e_1) = e_2$. Therefore $\phi(a^{-1}) = \phi(a)^{-1}$.

3. For any $A \in H$, elements $a, b, c \in \mathbb{R}$. Since if $b \in \mathbb{R}$, e^{ib} generates all elements of S^1 we conclude that ϕ is surjective.

To prove that $(G, \cdot)$ first note that closure is a consequence of the closure of $\mathbb{R}$ w.r.t. addition and multiplication and the fact that if $u_1, u_2 \in S^1$ then, since $e^{ix_1y_2} \in S_1$, $e^{ix_1y_2}u_1u_2 \in S_1$ (closure of S^1 under multiplication). To prove associativity write

$$\begin{aligned}
&((x_1, y_1, u_1) \cdot (x_2, y_2, u_2)) \cdot (x_3, y_3, u_3) = \\
&\quad = (x_1 + x_2, y_1 + y_2, e^{ix_1y_2}u_1u_2) \cdot (x_3, y_3, u_3) = \\
&\quad = (x_1 + x_2 + x_3, y_1 + y_2 + y_3, e^{i(x_1+x_2)y_3}e^{ix_1y_2}u_1u_2u_3) = \\
&\quad = (x_1 + (x_2 + x_3), y_1 + (y_2 + y_3), e^{ix_1(y_2+y_3)}u_1(e^{ix_2y_3}u_2u_3)) = \\
&\quad = (x_1, y_1, u_1) \cdot (x_2 + x_3, y_2 + y_3, e^{ix_2y_3}u_2u_3) = \\
&\quad = (x_1, y_1, u_1) \cdot ((x_2, y_2, u_2) \cdot (x_3, y_3, u_3)).
\end{aligned}$$

The identity element of G, $(0, 0, 1)$ borrows the identity elements of$(\mathbb{R}, +)$ and $(S^1, \cdot)$. The inverse of (x, y, u) must have the property

$$(x, y, u) \cdot (x', y', u') = (x + x', y + y', e^{ixy'}uu') = (0, 0, 1)$$

and so $x' = -x,\ y' = -y,\ u' = e^{ixy}u^{-1}$. ϕ is a homomorphism if for $A, B \in H$

$$\phi(A \cdot B) = \phi(A) \cdot \phi(B).$$

Since

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & a & b \\ 0 & 1 & c \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & d & e \\ 0 & 1 & f \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & a+d & af+b+e \\ 0 & 1 & c+f \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix},$$

we have

$$\begin{aligned}\phi(A\cdot B) &= (a+d, c+f, e^{i(af+b+e)})\\ &= (a,c,e^{ib})\cdot(d,f,e^{ie})\\ &= \phi(A)\cdot\phi(B).\end{aligned}$$

4. We are looking for a set of matrices $A \in H$ such that

$$\phi(A) = (0,0,1)$$

the identity element in G. From the definition of ϕ we must have

$$a = 0, c = 0, b = 2\pi n$$

where $n \in \mathbb{Z}$. For any $A \in \ker\phi$ we can write $A = I + 2\pi n E_{13}$. Closure follows since if $A, B \in \ker\phi$

$$\begin{aligned}A\cdot B &= (I+2\pi E_{13})\cdot(I+2\pi m E_{13})\\ &= I + 2\pi(n+m)E_{13} + (2\pi)^2 nmE_{13}^2\\ &= I + 2\pi(n+m)E_{13} \in \ker\phi.\end{aligned}$$

Associativity is inherited; the identity element is I ($n=0$) while the inverse of $A = I + 2\pi n E_{13}$ is $A^{-1} = I - 2\pi n E_{13}$. Hence $\ker\phi$ is a subgroup of H.

Problem 2.2:
To check that $m\mathbb{Z} = \{mk | k \in \mathbb{Z}\}$ is an abelian subgroup of $\mathbb{Z}$ first note that $mk_1 + mk_2 = m(k_1+k_2)$ (closure). Addition is commutative/associative in $\mathbb{Z}$ and $m\mathbb{Z}$ inherits these properties. It also inherits the identity element ($k=0$) and the inverse ($k^{-1} = -k$).
1. $\phi(mk) := k$; this is an homomorphism since

$$\phi(mk_1 + mk_2) = \phi(m(k_1+k_2)) = k_1 + k_2 = \phi(mk_1) + \phi(mk_2).$$

Since $\ker\phi = \{0\}$ it is also an isomorphism.
2. If $i(mk) := mk$ then

$$i(mk_1 + mk_2) = i(m(k_1+k_2)) = m(k_1+k_2) = mk_1 + mk_2 = i(mk_1) + i(mk_2)$$

hence the inclusion map is a group homomorphism. If $p : \mathbb{Z} \to m\mathbb{Z}$ is a homomorphism then

$$p(l_1 + l_2) = p(l_1) + p(l_2) = mk_1 + mk_2$$

where $l_1, l_2, k_1, k_2 \in \mathbb{Z}$ (for example $k = \lfloor l/m \rfloor$). If $p \circ i = \mathrm{id}$ then p is the left inverse of i. By Proposition 2.16, i must be an isomorphism. However, unless $m = 1$, i is not an isomorphism since it is not surjective.

Problem 2.3:
As defined E is an abelian group w.r.t. $+$. From the definition of $\cdot$ we have

$$\begin{aligned}\lambda\cdot((x_1,y_1)+(x_2,y_2)) &= \lambda\cdot(x_1+x_2, y_1+y_2) = (\lambda(x_1+x_2), y_1+y_2) = (\lambda x_1 + \lambda x_2, y_1+y_2)\\ &= (\lambda x_1, y_1) + (\lambda x_2, y_2) = \lambda\cdot(x_1,y_1) + \lambda\cdot(x_2,y_2)\end{aligned}$$

so axiom (V1) holds.

$$\begin{aligned}(\lambda+\mu)\cdot(x,y) &= ((\lambda+\mu)x, y) = (\lambda x + \mu x, y) = (\lambda x, y) + (\mu x, 0)\\ &= \lambda\cdot(x,y) + \mu\cdot(x,0) \neq \lambda\cdot(x,y) + \mu\cdot(x,y)\end{aligned}$$

so axiom (V2) fails.

$$(\lambda\mu)\cdot(x,y) = ((\lambda\mu)x, y) = (\lambda(\mu x), y) = \lambda\cdot(\mu x, y) = \lambda\cdot(\mu\cdot(x,y))$$

so axiom (V3) holds.

$$1\cdot(x,y) = (1 * x, y) = (x,y)$$

so axiom (V4) holds.

Problem 2.4:

1. Below we (mostly) omit steps that use the properties of a field.

$$\begin{aligned}
\alpha \cdot 0 &= \alpha \cdot (u - u), && \text{any vector } u \text{ has an additive inverse} \\
&= \alpha \cdot u - \alpha \cdot u, && \text{(V1)} \\
&= 0, && \text{the additive inverse of } \alpha \cdot u \text{ is } -\alpha \cdot u
\end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
0 \cdot v &= (\alpha - \alpha) \cdot v, && K \text{ is a field} \\
&= \alpha \cdot v - \alpha \cdot v, && \text{(V2)} \\
&= 0, && \text{the additive inverse of } \alpha \cdot v \text{ is } -\alpha \cdot v
\end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
\alpha \cdot (-v) &= \alpha \cdot (-1 \cdot v) \\
&= (\alpha * -1) \cdot v, && \text{(V3)} \\
&= -(\alpha \cdot v)
\end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
(-\alpha) \cdot v &= (-1 * \alpha) \cdot v \\
&= -1 \cdot (\alpha \cdot v), && \text{(V3)} \\
&= -(\alpha \cdot v), && \text{the additive inverse of } \alpha \cdot v \text{ is } -1 \cdot (\alpha \cdot v)
\end{aligned}$$

2. Axiom (V2) states that

$$\alpha \cdot (u + v) = \alpha \cdot u + \alpha \cdot v$$

where u, v are vectors and α is a scalar. Then

$$\begin{aligned}
\alpha \cdot x &= \alpha \cdot (x_1 e_1 + x_2 e_2 + \cdots + x_n e_n) \\
&= \alpha \cdot (x_1 e_1 + (x_2 e_2 + \cdots + x_n e_n)) \\
&= \alpha \cdot (x_1 e_1) + \alpha \cdot (x_2 e_2 + \cdots + x_n e_n) \\
&\vdots \\
&= \alpha \cdot (x_1 e_1) + \cdots + \alpha \cdot (x_{n-2} e_{n-2}) + \alpha \cdot (x_{n-1} e_{n-1} + x_n e_n) \\
&= \alpha \cdot (x_1 e_1) + \cdots + \alpha \cdot (x_n e_n).
\end{aligned}$$

Since for any $i = 1, 2, \ldots, n$,

$$\alpha \cdot (x_i e_i) = \alpha \cdot (x_i \cdot e_i) = (\alpha * x_i) \cdot e_i = (x_i * \alpha) \cdot e_i = x_i \cdot (\alpha \cdot e_i)$$

given $\{\alpha \cdot e_i\}_{i=1}^n$ we can determine the result of scalar multiplication on any vector by its action on the basis vectors.

3. Lets work backwards. We want to define scalar multiplication so that

$$1 \cdot u \neq u;$$

if we denote $1 \cdot u = \nu(u)$ then if axiom (V3) holds

$$(1 * 1) \cdot u = 1 \cdot (1 \cdot u) = 1 \cdot \nu(u) = \nu^2(u).$$

Since $1 * 1 = 1$ we conclude that $\nu(u) = \nu^2(u)$ and so, in this setting, scalar multiplication must be a projection. One example is

$$\alpha \cdot x = (\alpha x_1, \ldots, \alpha x_{n-1}, 0)$$

which for $\alpha = 1$ gives the desired result. All other axioms follow; for example

$$\begin{aligned}\alpha \cdot (x+y) &= (\alpha(x_1+y_1), \ldots, \alpha(x_{n-1}+y_{n-1}), 0) \\ &= (\alpha x_1, \alpha x_{n-1}, 0) + (\alpha y_1, \ldots, \alpha y_{n-1}, 0) \\ &= \alpha \cdot x + \alpha \cdot y.\end{aligned}$$

4. If $n \in \mathbb{N}$ then according to (V2)

$$\begin{aligned}n \cdot x &= (1 + \cdots + 1) \cdot x \\ &= 1 \cdot x + \cdots + 1 \cdot x \\ &= (y_1, \ldots, y_n) + \cdots + (y_1, \ldots, y_n) \\ &= (ny_1, \ldots, ny_n) = n(y_1, \ldots, y_n) \\ &= n(1 \cdot x).\end{aligned}$$

Next use (V3):

$$1 \cdot x = \left(\frac{1}{n} * n\right) \cdot x = n \cdot \left(\frac{1}{n} \cdot x\right) = (1 + \cdots + 1) \cdot \left(\frac{1}{n} \cdot x\right).$$

If $\frac{1}{n} \cdot x = (y_1', \ldots, y_n')$ then since $1 \cdot x = (y_1, \ldots, y_n)$ we must have

$$(y_1, \ldots, y_n) = (ny_1', \ldots, ny_n').$$

This is possible only if $y_i' = y_i/n$ for $i = 1, \ldots, n$ and so we find that

$$\frac{1}{n} \cdot x = \frac{1}{n}(1 \cdot x).$$

A rational number $r = m/n$ where $m, n \in \mathbb{N}$; then

$$\begin{aligned}\frac{m}{n} \cdot x &= \left(m * \frac{1}{n}\right) \cdot x = m \cdot \left(\frac{1}{n} \cdot x\right) = m \cdot \left(\frac{1}{n}(1 \cdot x)\right) \\ &= \frac{1}{n}(m \cdot (1 \cdot x)) = \frac{1}{n}(1 \cdot (m \cdot x)) = \frac{1}{n}(1 \cdot m(1 \cdot x)) \\ &= \frac{m}{n}(1 \cdot (1 \cdot x)) = r((1 * 1) \cdot x) = r(1 \cdot x).\end{aligned}$$

Any vector x has the following expansion given a basis $\{e_1, \ldots, e_n\}$:

$$x = x_1 e_1 + \cdots + x_n e_n.$$

Given $1 \cdot x = y$ and

$$y = y_1 e_1 + \cdots + y_n e_n$$

we have

$$1 \cdot x = x_1(1 \cdot e_1) + \cdots + x_n(1 \cdot e_n).$$

Define $1 \cdot e_i = \sum_{j=1}^n \nu_{ji} e_j$ where ν_{ji} are scalars. Then

$$y_i = \sum_{j=1}^n \nu_{ji} x_i.$$

So, given any vector x, and the coefficients ν that determine the action of 1 on a basis of $\mathbb{R}^n$ we can determine $1 \cdot x$. Then since $r \cdot x = ry$ we can determine the action of any scalar multiplication.

Problem 2.5:
Linear independence requires that

$$a\begin{pmatrix}2\\1\\-3\end{pmatrix}+b\begin{pmatrix}3\\2\\-5\end{pmatrix}+c\begin{pmatrix}1\\-1\\1\end{pmatrix}=0\Rightarrow a=b=c=0.$$

Starting from

$$\begin{aligned}2a+3b+c&=0\\-3a-5b+c&=0\end{aligned}$$

we obtain

$$5a-8b=0.$$

Then from

$$\begin{aligned}2a+3b+c&=0\\a+2b-c&=0\end{aligned}$$

we have

$$3a+5b=0.$$

The only solution to this system of equations is $a=b=0$ since

$$3(5a-8b)-5(3a+5b)=-b=0$$

and then $5a=0$. Substitute $a=b=0$ in any of the three equations to obtain $c=0$. The basis expansion of $x=(6,2,-7)$ in terms of these three independent vectors requires that

$$a\begin{pmatrix}2\\1\\-3\end{pmatrix}+b\begin{pmatrix}3\\2\\-5\end{pmatrix}+c\begin{pmatrix}1\\-1\\1\end{pmatrix}=\begin{pmatrix}6\\2\\-7\end{pmatrix}.$$

It is easy to show that $a=b=c=1$.

Problem 2.6:
We want to show that

$$\begin{pmatrix}1\\3\\-1\\0\end{pmatrix}=a\begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\-1\\-2\end{pmatrix}+b\begin{pmatrix}2\\3\\0\\-1\end{pmatrix}+c\begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\1\\3\end{pmatrix}$$

for at least one of a,b,c different from zero. Since we must have

$$-a+c=-1,\quad -2a-b+3c=0$$

we can write $a=1+c$, $b=c-2$. We are now left with

$$\begin{aligned}a+2b+c=1,&\quad c+1+2(c-2)+c=1,\quad 4c=4\\2a+3b+2c=3,&\quad 2(c+1)+3(c-2)+2c=3,\quad 7c=7\end{aligned}$$

both of which have solution $c=1$. Then $a=2,\ b=-1$.

It is easy to show that the first three columns are independent. Hence the columns of A span a subspace of $\mathbb{R}^4$. Therefore it is possible that the vector given cannot be expressed as a linear combination of the columns of A. After some rather tedious calculations that's what we find.

Problem 2.7:
Linear independence requires that

$$a\begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\1\end{pmatrix}+b\begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\2\end{pmatrix}+c\begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\3\end{pmatrix}=0\Rightarrow a=b=c=0.$$

From the first equation we have $c=-(a+b)$; then, for the other two equations,

$$a=2b,\qquad a=3b$$

which only has a solution if $a=b=0$. It follows that $c=0$. Next

$$x_1\begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\1\end{pmatrix}+x_2\begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\2\end{pmatrix}+x_3\begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\3\end{pmatrix}=\begin{pmatrix}6\\9\\14\end{pmatrix}$$

is solved for $x_1=1, x_2=2, x_3=3$.

Problem 2.8:
Linear independence requires

$$a\begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\-1\\-2\end{pmatrix}+b\begin{pmatrix}2\\3\\0\\-1\end{pmatrix}+c\begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\1\\4\end{pmatrix}+d\begin{pmatrix}1\\3\\-1\\0\end{pmatrix}=0\Rightarrow a=b=c=d=0.$$

Use

$$2(a+2b+c+d)-(2a+3b+2c+3d)=0\Rightarrow b=d$$

to rewrite the condition as

$$a\begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\-1\\-2\end{pmatrix}+b\begin{pmatrix}3\\6\\-1\\-1\end{pmatrix}+c\begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\1\\4\end{pmatrix}=0$$

Next

$$(a+3b+c)+(-a-b+c)=0\Rightarrow b=-c$$

and

$$a\begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\-1\\-2\end{pmatrix}+b\begin{pmatrix}2\\4\\-2\\-5\end{pmatrix}=0$$

It is clear that $(1,2,-1,-2)$ and $(2,4,-2,-5)$ are independent. Hence $a=b=0$ and, from the last two equations $c=d=0$.

The coordinates of x are $(0,2,1,2)$

Problem 2.9:
The hint given uses the fact that if two vectors are orthogonal then they are independent. Since the rows of H^T contain the columns of H, independence requires that $H^\mathsf{T}H$ is a diagonal matrix:

$$\begin{bmatrix}1&1&1&1\\1&1&-1&-1\\1&-1&0&0\\0&0&1&-1\end{bmatrix}\begin{bmatrix}1&1&1&0\\1&1&-1&0\\1&-1&0&1\\1&-1&0&-1\end{bmatrix}=\begin{bmatrix}4&0&0&0\\0&4&0&0\\0&0&2&0\\0&0&0&2\end{bmatrix}$$

Problem 2.10:
As with Problem 2.9.

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 1 & -1 & 1 & -1 \\ 1 & 1 & -1 & -1 \\ 1 & -1 & -1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 4 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 4 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 4 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 4 \end{bmatrix}$$

Problem 2.11:
1. The condition for linear independence is

$$b_1 v_1 + \cdots + b_m v_m = 0 \Rightarrow b_1 = \cdots = b_n = 0.$$

Rewrite the linear combination as

$$\sum_{i=1}^{m} b_i v_i = \sum_{i=1}^{m} b_i \sum_{j=1}^{m} a_{ij} u_j = 0$$

Next, interchange the order of summation, and use the linear independence of u vectors to produce the following set of conditions:

$$\sum_{i=1}^{m} b_i a_{ij} = 0, \quad j = 1, \ldots, m. \tag{$*$}$$

Each column of A is a vector a_j; then given j the above sum is the inner product of a vector b with a_j. Since the inner product of vector b with all columns of A is zero, $b \notin \operatorname{span}(a_1, \ldots, a_m)$. If vectors $a_1, \ldots, a_m$ are independent then

$$c_1 a_1 + \cdots + c_m a_m = 0 \Rightarrow c_1 = \cdots = c_m = 0.$$

Note that since A is upper triangular we can write this as

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & \cdots & a_{1m} \\ 0 & a_{22} & \cdots & a_{2m} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{mm} \end{bmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} c_1 \\ c_2 \\ \vdots \\ c_m \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ \vdots \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}.$$

It is clear that $c_m = 0$; then we have

$$c_{m-1} a_{m-1,m-1} + c_m a_{m-1,m} = 0, \Rightarrow c_{m-1} = 0.$$

Continuing in this fashion we find that $c_1 = \cdots = c_m = 0$ and so the columns of A are independent vectors. There are m of them so they span the whole vector space. So it is not possible for vector b to be orthogonal to all a vectors. Hence we conclude that $(*)$ only holds if $b = 0$ and vectors $v_1, \cdots, v_m$ are independent.
2. We have already shown that, if the diagonal entries of A are nonzero, the columns of A are independent vectors. Therefore with the exception of the zero vector there is no vector x such that $Ax = 0$. For any vector y there is a unique vector x such that $y = Ax$. Otherwise, if $y = Ax'$ we must have $A(x' - x) = 0$ which leads to a contradiction. Therefore the inverse of A exists. Given $Ax = y$ then there is a simple recursive formula for the solutions of this system of equations:

$$\begin{aligned} x_m &= \frac{1}{a_{m,m}} y_m \\ x_{m-1} &= \frac{1}{a_{m-1,m-1}} \left(y_{m-1} - a_{m-1,m} x_m \right) \\ &\vdots \\ x_i &= \frac{1}{a_{i,i}} \left(y_i - \sum_{k=i+1}^{m} a_{ik} x_k \right) \end{aligned} \tag{$*$}$$

We also have $x = A^{-1}y$ and so

$$x_i = \sum_{k=1}^{m} a'_{ik} y_k.$$

In $(*)$ every x_k is only a function of y_l with $l \geq k$. Therefore x_i is only a function of $y_i, y_{i+1}, \ldots, y_m$ and $a'_{ik} = 0$ if $k < i$. Hence the inverse is also upper-triangular. From this we also conclude that if the diagonal elements of A are equal to zero then A^{-1} does not have an inverse.

3. We have already shown that if $(u_1, \ldots, u_m)$ are linearly independent then $(v_1, \ldots, v_m)$ are linearly independent. Now assume that $(v_1, \ldots, v_m)$ are linearly independent. If

$$v_i = \sum_{j=1}^{m} a_{ij} u_j$$

then in matrix form we have

$$\left[\begin{array}{c|c|c|c} v_1 & v_2 & \cdots & v_m \end{array}\right] = \left[\begin{array}{c|c|c|c} u_1 & u_2 & \cdots & u_m \end{array}\right] \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{21} & \cdots & a_{m1} \\ a_{12} & a_{22} & \cdots & a_{m2} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{1m} & a_{2m} & \cdots & a_{mm} \end{bmatrix}$$

or, in shorthand,

$$V = UA^{\mathsf{T}}.$$

Since A has an inverse

$$U = V(A^{-1})^{\mathsf{T}}.$$

Therefore we can write

$$u_i = a'_{i1} v_1 + \cdots + a'_{im} v_m$$

where a'_{ij} are the elements of A^{-1}. From this point follow the steps in (1) to show that the u vectors are linearly independent given that the v vectors are independent.

Problem 2.12:

1. We have a simple system of recursive equations with the following solution:

$$\begin{aligned} x_n &= b_n \\ x_{n-1} &= b_{n-1} - 2x_n = b_{n-1} - 2b_n \\ &\vdots \qquad\qquad \vdots \\ x_i &= b_i - 2x_{i+1} = b_i - 2b_{i+1} + 4b_{i+2} + \cdots + (-2)^{n-i} b_n \end{aligned}$$

2. From the solution above it is clear that if $b = 0$ then $x = 0$ and so since $\ker A = \{0\}$ it has an inverse. The inverse is an upper-triangular matrix:

$$A^{-1} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & \cdots & (-2)^{n-2} & (-2)^{n-1} \\ 0 & 1 & \cdots & (-2)^{n-3} & (-2)^{n-2} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

If $n \geq 300$ then the largest coefficient is greater or equal to 2^{300}. As a comparison with the number of atoms in the universe, $10 \approx 2^3$ so $2^{300} \approx 10^{100}$.

3. Starting with

$$A(x + \Delta x) = b + \Delta b$$

since $Ax = b$ we have

$$\Delta x = A^{-1}\Delta b.$$

If $b = (0, 0, \ldots, 0, \epsilon)$ then, using the recursive formula,

$$(\Delta x)_1 = (-2)^{n-1}\epsilon$$

and

$$|(\Delta x)_1| = (2)^{n-1}|\epsilon|.$$

4.

shorthand: if e_i is a basis vector in $\mathbb{R}^n$ with all zero elements except from 1 at the ith element then the basis vectors of $M_{n,n}$ can be written as the outer product of two basis vectors (e.g. $E_{13} = e_1 e_3^\mathsf{T}$). From this we obtain the simple rule

$$E_{ij}E_{jk} = e_i e_j^\mathsf{T} e_j e_k^\mathsf{T} = e_i e_k^\mathsf{T} = E_{ik}$$

and $E_{ij}E_{kl} = O$ when $j \neq k$.

$$\begin{aligned}
A - I &= 2E_{12} + 2E_{23} + \cdots + 2E_{n-2,n-1} + 2E_{n-1,n} \\
(A-I)^2 &= 4E_{13} + 4E_{24} + \cdots + 4E_{n-3,n-1} + 4E_{n-2,n} \\
&\vdots \\
(A-I)^{n-1} &= 2^{n-1}E_{1,n} \\
(A-I)^n &= (2E_{12} + 2E_{23} + \cdots + 2E_{n-2,n-1} + 2E_{n-1,n})E_{1,n} = O
\end{aligned}$$

longhand:

$$A - I = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 2 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$(A-I)^2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 2^2 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2^2 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 2^2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$\vdots$$

$$(A-I)^{n-1} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 2^{n-1} \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$(A-I)^n = O$$

Problem 2.13:

1. First note that in the same way that

$$a^r - b^r = (a-b)(a^{r-1} + a^{r-2}b + \cdots + ab^{r-2} + b^{r-1})$$

where $a, b \in K$, it is also the case that

$$I^r - N^r = (I-N)(I^{r-1} + I^{r-1}N + \cdots + IN^{r-2} + N^{r-1}).$$

Since $N^r = O$ and all powers of I are equal to I we have

$$I = (I-N)(I + N + \cdots + N^{r-2} + N^{r-1})$$

Since

$$(I-N)(I-N)^{-1} = I$$

we conclude that

$$(I-N)^{-1} = I + N + \cdots + N^{r-2} + N^{r-1}.$$

2.

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 & 5 \\ 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} + \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 2 & 3 & 4 & 5 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & 3 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

or $A = I + N$.

$$N^2 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 4 & 12 & 25 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 4 & 12 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 4 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$N^3 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 8 & 36 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 8 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$N^4 = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 16 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$N^5 = O \Rightarrow r = 5$$

Therefore

$$\begin{aligned} A^{-1} = (I+N)^{-1} &= I - N + N^2 - N^3 + N^4 \\ &= \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 1 & -2 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \end{aligned}$$

Problem 2.14:
1. If a matrix A is invertible then for every y there is a unique x such that $y = Ax$. Now assume that for a vector $x' \neq 0$, we have $Ax' = 0$. Then $y = Ax + 0 = Ax + Ax' = A(x + x')$. Since there is no unique x such that $y = Ax$ this matrix is not invertible. Only if $Ax = 0 \Rightarrow x = 0$ the matrix is invertible.
2. $I_m - AB$ is invertible if

$$(I_m - AB)y = 0 \Rightarrow y = 0.$$

We are given that

$$(I_n - BA)x = 0 \Rightarrow x = 0.$$

Multiply both sides with A (this is allowed since $A \in M_{m,n}$):

$$A(I_n - BA)x = 0, Ax - (AB)(Ax) = 0, (I_m - AB)(Ax) = 0.$$

Since $x = 0$, $Ax = 0$ and so $I_m - AB$ is invertible.

Problem 2.15:
1. For

$$(n-3)b_1 - (b_2 + \cdots + b_n)$$

the first element of the resulting vector is

$$(n-3) \cdot 1 - (n-1) \cdot (-1) = 2n - 4 = 2(n-2).$$

For all other elements we have

$$(n-3) \cdot 1 - (n-2) \cdot 1 - (-1) = (n-3) - (n-3) = 0.$$

For $b_1 - b_i$ we always have the first element equal to

$$1 - (-1) - 2$$

while for all elements, except from the ith element,

$$1 - (1) = 0.$$

For the $i$the element we have

$$1 - (-1) = 2$$

and so $b_1 - b_i = 2(e_1 + e_i)$.
2. The equations in (1) can be written in matrix form:

$$B \begin{bmatrix} n-3 & 1 & 1 & \cdots & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & -1 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 2(n-2) & 2 & 2 & \cdots & 2 & 2 & 2 \\ 0 & 2 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 2 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 2 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 2 \end{bmatrix}$$

Remove the factor of 2 from the r.h.s.:

$$B\frac{1}{2}\begin{bmatrix} n-3 & 1 & 1 & \cdots & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & -1 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$= \begin{bmatrix} (n-2) & 1 & 1 & \cdots & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

The matrix in the r.h.s. can be written in block form as

$$\begin{bmatrix} (n-2) & e^{\mathsf{T}} \\ 0 & I_{n-1} \end{bmatrix}$$

where $e^{\mathsf{T}} = (1, 1, \ldots, 1)$ (0 is a vector of $n-1$ zeros). It is easy to check that

$$\begin{bmatrix} (n-2) & e^{\mathsf{T}} \\ 0 & I_{n-1} \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{(n-2)} & -\frac{1}{n-2}e^{\mathsf{T}} \\ 0 & I_{n-1} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0^{\mathsf{T}} \\ 0 & I_{n-1} \end{bmatrix}.$$

Therefore

$$\begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{(n-2)} & -\frac{1}{(n-2)} & -\frac{1}{(n-2)} & \cdots & -\frac{1}{(n-2)} & -\frac{1}{(n-2)} & -\frac{1}{(n-2)} \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

is the inverse of the matrix in the r.h.s. The inverse of B is equal to the following product:

$$\frac{1}{2}\begin{bmatrix} n-3 & 1 & 1 & \cdots & 1 & 1 & 1 \\ -1 & -1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & -1 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & -1 & 0 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & -1 & 0 \\ -1 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & -1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{(n-2)} & -\frac{1}{(n-2)} & -\frac{1}{(n-2)} & \cdots & -\frac{1}{(n-2)} & -\frac{1}{(n-2)} & -\frac{1}{(n-2)} \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

Simplify by writing both matrices in block form

$$\begin{bmatrix} \frac{n-3}{2} & \frac{1}{2}e^{\mathsf{T}} \\ -\frac{1}{2}e & -\frac{1}{2}I_{n-1} \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \frac{1}{n-2} & -\frac{1}{n-2}e^{\mathsf{T}} \\ 0 & I_{n-1} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} \frac{n-3}{2(n-2)} & -\frac{n-3}{2(n-2)}e^{\mathsf{T}} + \frac{1}{2}e^{\mathsf{T}} \\ -\frac{1}{2(n-2)}e & \frac{1}{2(n-2)}ee^{\mathsf{T}} - \frac{1}{2}I_{n-1} \end{bmatrix}$$

Since

$$-\frac{n-3}{2(n-2)} + \frac{1}{2} = \frac{-(n-3)+(n-2)}{2(n-2)} = \frac{1}{2(n-2)}$$

the off-diagonal elements in the first row are equal to this value. Next, since ee^T is a matrix of ones,

$$\frac{1}{2(n-2)}ee^\mathsf{T} - \frac{1}{2}I_{n-1}$$

is a matrix with off-diagonal elements equal to $1/2(n-2)$ and diagonal elements equal to

$$\frac{1}{2(n-2)} - \frac{1}{2} = \frac{1-(n-2)}{2(n-2)} = -\frac{n-3}{2(n-2)}.$$

3. Define $D_i = \operatorname{diag}(b_i)$ where diag converts a vector into a diagonal matrix. First, assume that the columns of B are independent. Then since any $n \times n$ diagonal matrix is $\operatorname{diag}(x)$ where $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ we can write

$$\operatorname{diag}(x) = \operatorname{diag}(x_1 b_1 + \cdots x_n b_n).$$

Since $x_1, \ldots, x_n$ are scalars and diagonal matrices form a vector space we have

$$\operatorname{diag}(x) = x_1 \operatorname{diag}(b_1) \cdots + x_n \operatorname{diag}(b_n).$$

Hence the diagonal matrices generated using the columns of B can be used as a basis for the vector space of diagonal matrices. Independence of the columns of B follows from the fact that B has an inverse.

Problem 2.16:

$$(A^k B_k)_{ij} = a_{ik} b_{kj}$$

where a_{ik} (resp. b_{kj}) are the elements of of A (resp. B). Hence

$$\sum_{k=1}^{n} (A^k B_k)_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^{n} a_{ik} b_{kj}.$$

From the definition of the matrix product

$$(AB)_{ij} = \sum_{k=1}^{n} a_{ik} b_{kj}$$

and so

$$\sum_{k=1}^{n} (A^k B_k)_{ij} = (AB)_{ij}.$$

Problem 2.17:
From the definition of the inverse

$$f^{-1} f(ax + by) = ax + by$$

where a, b are scalars and x, y are vectors. Since f is a linear map

$$f^{-1}(af(x) + bf(y)) = ax + by.$$

If f^{-1} is not linear then

$$f^{-1}(af(x) + bf(y)) \neq af^{-1}f(x) + bf^{-1}f(y) = ax + by.$$

We have arrived at a contradiction and this completes the proof.

Problem 2.18:
For any $x \in E$,

$$x = x_1 u_1 + \cdots + x_n u_n$$

where n is the dimension of E. From the definition of the linear map

$$f(x) = x_1 f(u_1) + \cdots + x_n f(u_n).$$

If $(f(u_i))_{i \in I}$ spans F then if we vary the coordinates $x_1, \ldots, x_n$ we can generate any vector in F. Hence f is surjective.

Problem 2.19:
We can generate an orthonormal basis of E using vectors $v/\|v\|, e_1, \ldots, e_{n-1}$ ($\|v\|$ is the norm of vector v; vectors $e_1, \ldots, e_{n-1}$ are not the canonical basis vectors). Hence $\dim \ker f = n - 1$ since

$$Ae_j = uv^\mathsf{T} e_j = 0, \quad \text{for } j = 1, \ldots, n$$

and

$$Av = uv^\mathsf{T} \frac{v}{\|v\|} = \|v\| u \neq 0.$$

So f has rank 1.

Problem 2.20:

$$\phi_1 - 10\phi_2 + 7\phi_3 = 0, \quad \text{for all } x, y, z.$$

since

$$\begin{bmatrix} 2 & 3 & 4 \\ -1 & -5 & -7 \\ 3 & 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

if

$$\begin{pmatrix} a \\ b \\ c \end{pmatrix} = a \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ -10 \\ 7 \end{pmatrix}.$$

Problem 2.21:
ϕ_1, ϕ_2, ϕ_3 are linearly independent if

$$a\phi_1 + b\phi_2 + c\phi_3 = 0 \Rightarrow a = b = c = 0.$$

To show this write the following system of equations:

$$\begin{aligned} a + 2b + 3c &= 0 \\ 2a + 3b + 7c &= 0 \\ a + 3b + c &= 0 \end{aligned}$$

With $c = -a - 3b$ the first two equations are

$$\begin{aligned} -2a - 7b &= 0 \\ -5a - 18b &= 0 \end{aligned}$$

The only solution is $a = b = 0$; then $c = 0$ and the three linear forms are independent. It is easy to show that

$$\phi = -6\phi_1 + 2\phi_2 + \phi_3.$$

3 Chapter 3

Problem 3.1:

$$\begin{bmatrix}1&2&3\\2&3&7\\1&3&1\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-2R1+R2}\begin{bmatrix}1&2&3\\0&-1&1\\1&3&1\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-R1+R3}\begin{bmatrix}1&2&3\\0&-1&1\\0&1&-2\end{bmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{-R2}\begin{bmatrix}1&2&3\\0&1&-1\\0&1&-2\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-R2+R3}\begin{bmatrix}1&2&3\\0&1&-1\\0&0&-1\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-R3}\begin{bmatrix}1&2&3\\0&1&-1\\0&0&1\end{bmatrix}.$$

Some high school math:

$$-27\begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\1\end{bmatrix}+9\begin{bmatrix}2\\3\\3\end{bmatrix}+4\begin{bmatrix}3\\7\\1\end{bmatrix}=\begin{bmatrix}3\\1\\4\end{bmatrix}$$
$$-61\begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\1\end{bmatrix}+18\begin{bmatrix}2\\3\\3\end{bmatrix}+10\begin{bmatrix}3\\7\\1\end{bmatrix}=\begin{bmatrix}5\\2\\3\end{bmatrix}$$
$$-41\begin{bmatrix}1\\2\\1\end{bmatrix}+9\begin{bmatrix}2\\3\\3\end{bmatrix}+8\begin{bmatrix}3\\7\\1\end{bmatrix}=\begin{bmatrix}1\\1\\-6\end{bmatrix}$$

Apply the following operation on P_1:

$$\begin{bmatrix}-27&-61&-41\\9&18&9\\4&10&8\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-2C1+C2\to C3}\begin{bmatrix}-27&-61&-7\\9&18&0\\4&10&2\end{bmatrix}$$

Now

$$A_1P_1=\begin{bmatrix}3&5&-1\\1&2&0\\4&3&-5\end{bmatrix}\neq B_1.$$

It is easy to check that B_1 is not invertible since $C3=C2-2C1$.

Problem 3.2:
Proof that A_2 is invertible:

$$\begin{bmatrix}1&1&1&1\\1&2&1&3\\1&1&2&2\\1&1&1&3\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-R1+R2}\begin{bmatrix}1&1&1&1\\0&1&0&2\\1&1&2&2\\1&1&1&3\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-R1+R3}\begin{bmatrix}1&1&1&1\\0&1&0&2\\0&0&1&1\\1&1&1&3\end{bmatrix}$$
$$\xrightarrow{-R1+R4}\begin{bmatrix}1&1&1&1\\0&1&0&2\\0&0&1&1\\0&0&0&2\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{\frac{1}{2}R4}\begin{bmatrix}1&1&1&1\\0&1&0&2\\0&0&1&1\\0&0&0&1\end{bmatrix}.$$

Proof that B_2 is invertible:

$$\begin{bmatrix}1&-2&2&-2\\0&-3&2&-3\\3&-5&5&-4\\3&-4&4&-4\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-3R1+R3}\begin{bmatrix}1&-2&2&-2\\0&-3&2&-3\\0&1&-1&2\\3&-4&4&-4\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-3R1+R4}\begin{bmatrix}1&-2&2&-2\\0&-3&2&-3\\0&1&-1&2\\0&2&-2&2\end{bmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{-\frac{1}{3}R2}\begin{bmatrix}1&-2&2&-2\\0&1&-\frac{2}{3}&1\\0&1&-1&2\\0&2&-2&2\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-R2+R3}\begin{bmatrix}1&-2&2&-2\\0&1&-\frac{2}{3}&1\\0&0&-\frac{1}{3}&1\\0&2&-2&2\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{-2R2+R4}\begin{bmatrix}1&-2&2&-2\\0&1&-\frac{2}{3}&1\\0&0&-\frac{1}{3}&1\\0&0&-\frac{2}{3}&0\end{bmatrix}$$

$$\xrightarrow{-3R3}\begin{bmatrix}1&-2&2&-2\\0&1&-\frac{2}{3}&1\\0&0&1&-4\\0&0&-\frac{2}{3}&0\end{bmatrix}\xrightarrow{\frac{2}{3}R3+R4}\begin{bmatrix}1&-2&2&-2\\0&1&-\frac{2}{3}&1\\0&0&1&-4\\0&0&0&1\end{bmatrix}.$$

To prove that the coordinates of the column vectors of matrix B_2 over the basis consisting of the column vectors of A_2 are the columns of P_2 do a check like

$$2\begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\1\\1\end{pmatrix}-3\begin{pmatrix}1\\2\\1\\1\end{pmatrix}+\begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\2\\1\end{pmatrix}+\begin{pmatrix}1\\3\\2\\3\end{pmatrix}=\begin{pmatrix}1\\0\\3\\3\end{pmatrix}$$

Repeat the same calculations for all other columns of B_2. One takeaway from this calculations is that the individual operations using a column of P_2 as the coordinates of a vector over the basis defined by the columns of A_2 is equivalent to the matrix multiplication A_2P_2. We have already shown that this is equal to B_2.

To prove that the value given for P_2^{-1} is correct check that

$$B_2P_2^{-1}=\begin{bmatrix}1&-2&2&-2\\0&-3&2&-3\\3&-5&5&-4\\3&-4&4&-4\end{bmatrix}\begin{bmatrix}-1&-1&-1&1\\2&1&1&-2\\2&1&2&-3\\-1&-1&0&-1\end{bmatrix}=\begin{bmatrix}1&1&1&1\\1&2&1&3\\1&1&2&2\\1&1&1&3\end{bmatrix}.$$

The mouthfull

> the coordinates over the basis consisting of the column vectors of B_2 of the vector whose coordinates over the basis consisting of the column vectors of A_2 are $(2,-3,0,0)$

can be summarized as

$$B_2x=A_2y$$

where

$$y^{\mathsf{T}}=\begin{pmatrix}2&-3&0&0\end{pmatrix}.$$

Since $B_2=A_2P_2$ write this as

$$P_2x=y,\quad x=P_1^{-1}y.$$

We have

$$x=\begin{bmatrix}-1&-1&-1&1\\2&1&1&-2\\2&1&2&-3\\-1&-1&0&-1\end{bmatrix}\begin{pmatrix}2\\-3\\0\\0\end{pmatrix}=\begin{pmatrix}1\\1\\1\\1\end{pmatrix}.$$

Problem 3.3:

1. To show that

$$\begin{pmatrix}B_0^2(t)\\B_1^2(t)\\B_2^2(t)\end{pmatrix}=\begin{bmatrix}1&-2&1\\0&2&-2\\0&0&1\end{bmatrix}\begin{pmatrix}1\\t\\t^2\end{pmatrix}$$

is trivial as it only requires polynomial expansion which any high school student should be able to do. Since

$$B_0^2(t) + B_1^2(t) + B_2^2(t) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} B_0^2(t) \\ B_1^2(t) \\ B_2^2(t) \end{pmatrix}$$

it suffices to show that

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}.$$

2. For the first row of the matrix use the formula for the binomial expansion:

$$(1-t)^3 = 1 - 3t + 3t^2 - t^3.$$

More high school algebra produces the other rows.

Following the same procedure as in (1) we can show that

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -3 & 3 & -1 \\ 0 & 3 & -6 & 3 \\ 0 & 0 & 3 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}.$$

3. For this proof start with the assertion that $1, t, t^2$ are linearly independent. This means that

$$a_0 + a_1 t + a_2 t^2 = 0 \quad \text{for all } t \quad \Rightarrow a_0 = a_1 = a_2 = 0.$$

Since $a_0 + a_1 t + a_2 t^2$ is a quadratic equation it can have only two solutions (ignore whether $K = \mathbb{C}$ or $\mathbb{R}$). The condition for linear independence requires that the quadratic must have an infinite number of solutions. This is only possible if $a_0 = a_1 = a_2 = 0$ completing the proof.

Since the Bernstein polynomials are linear combinations of the basis, linear independence requires that

$$\begin{bmatrix} 1 & -2 & 1 \\ 0 & 2 & -2 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

has an inverse. This is clear since the matrix is upper-triangular with non-zero diagonal elements. The same procedure provides proof for Bernstein polynomials of degree 3.

Problem 3.4:

1. Use

$$(1-t)^{m-k} = \sum_{r=0}^{m-k} \binom{m-k}{r} (-t)^{m-k-r}$$

and

$$\binom{m-k}{r}\binom{m}{k} = \binom{m}{k+r}\binom{k+r}{k}$$

together with the change of variable $j = k + r$ to produce (3.5).

Following the same procedure as above it is easy to show that $1, t, t^2, \ldots, t^m$ are linearly independent. From (3.5)

$$\begin{pmatrix} B_0^m(t) \\ B_1^m(t) \\ \vdots \\ B_{m-1}^m(t) \\ B_m^m(t) \end{pmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -m & \cdots & (-1)^{m-1}m & (-1)^m m \\ 0 & m & \cdots & (-1)^{m-2}m(m-1) & (-1)^{m-1}m \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & m & -m \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ t \\ \vdots \\ t^{m-1} \\ t^m \end{pmatrix}$$

The matrix in the r.h.s. is upper-triangular with non-zero diagonal elements. Hence it is invertible and so the elements of the vector in the l.h.s. also constitute a basis for the vector space of polynomials with degree up to m. Therefore $B_0^m(t), B_1^m(t), \ldots, B_{m-1}^m(t), B_m^m(t)$ are linearly independent.

2.

$$B_0^m(t) + B_1^m(t) + \cdots + B_{m-1}^m(t) + B_m^m(t) = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & \cdots & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} B_0^m(t) \\ B_1^m(t) \\ \vdots \\ B_{m-1}^m(t) \\ B_m^m(t) \end{pmatrix}$$

Next note that to resolve

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & \cdots & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -m & \cdots & (-1)^{m-1}m & (-1)^m m \\ 0 & m & \cdots & (-1)^{m-2}m(m-1) & (-1)^{m-1}m \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & m & -m \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix}$$

we must evaluate sums like

$$S_j = \sum_{k=0}^{m} (-1)^{j-k} \binom{m}{j} \binom{j}{k}$$

each keeping j fixed. For $j = 0$ it is easy to show that $S_0 = 1$; for all other values of j

$$\sum_{k=0}^{j} (-1)^{j-k} \binom{m}{j} \binom{j}{k} = \binom{m}{j} \sum_{k=0}^{j} (-1)^{j-k} \binom{j}{k} = \binom{m}{j} \sum_{k=0}^{j} (-1)^{j-k} 1^k \binom{j}{k} = \binom{m}{j} (1-1)^j = 0.$$

Hence

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 & 1 & \cdots & 1 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 1 & -m & \cdots & (-1)^{m-1}m & (-1)^m m \\ 0 & m & \cdots & (-1)^{m-2}m(m-1) & (-1)^{m-1}m \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & m & -m \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

and the proof is complete.

3. We have already shown that this matrix is upper-triangular. The diagonal elements are equal to $\binom{m}{k}$. This matrix is symmetric w.r.t. the anti-diagonal. This is easy to see for the diagonal elements; for all other elements note that element (k, j) is reflected across the anti-diagonal to element $(m-j, m-k)$. Then the value of the reflected element is

$$\begin{aligned} (-1)^{m-k-(m-j)} \binom{m}{m-k} \binom{m-k}{m-j} &= (-1)^{j-k} \frac{m!}{(m-k)!k!} \frac{(m-k)!}{(m-j)!(j-k)!} \\ &= (-1)^{j-k} \frac{m!}{j!k!} \frac{j!}{(m-j)!(j-k)!} = (-1)^{j-k} \frac{m!}{j!(m-j)!} \frac{j!}{k!(j-k)!} \\ &= (-1)^{j-k} \binom{m}{j} \binom{j}{k} \end{aligned}$$

which is equal to the value of the original element.

We have already shown that, with the exception of column 1, the sum of the elements for all other columns is equal to zero. For the sum of the elements along each row note that for $t = 1$ all elements of the basis are equal to 1. Therefore the sum of the elements for row k is equal to $B_k^m(1) = 0$; the exception to this rule is row m (using zero indexing) for which the sum equals 1.

4. Using the definition of a Bernstein polynomial

$$\sum_{j=0}^{m-i} t^i B_j^{m-i}(t) = \sum_{j=0}^{m-i} t^i \binom{m-i}{j}(1-t)^{m-i-j}t^j = t^i \sum_{j=0}^{m-i} \binom{m-i}{j}(1-t)^{m-i-j}t^j = t^i(1-t+t)^{m-i} = t^i.$$

Next

$$\begin{aligned}\binom{m}{i}\binom{m-i}{j} &= \frac{m!}{i!(m-i)!}\frac{(m-i)!}{j!(m-i-j)!} = \frac{m!}{i!(i+j)!}\frac{(i+j)!}{j!(m-i-j)!} \\ &= \frac{m!}{(m-i-j)!(i+j)!}\frac{(i+j)!}{i!j!} = \binom{m}{i+j}\binom{i+j}{i}.\end{aligned}$$

Using these facts

$$\begin{aligned}\sum_{j=0}^{m-i} \frac{\binom{i+j}{i}}{\binom{m}{i}} B_{i+j}^m(t) &= \sum_{j=0}^{m-i} \frac{\binom{i+j}{i}}{\binom{m}{i}} \binom{m}{i+j}(1-t)^{m-i-j}t^{i+j} \\ &= \sum_{j=0}^{m-i} \binom{m-i}{j}(1-t)^{m-i-j}t^{i+j} \\ &= \sum_{j=0}^{m-i} t^i \binom{m-i}{j}(1-t)^{m-i-j}t^j \\ &= \sum_{j=0}^{m-i} t^i B_j^{m-i}(t) = t^i.\end{aligned}$$

We can write

$$\begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ t \\ \vdots \\ t^{m-1} \\ t^m \end{pmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 1 & \cdots & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & \frac{1}{m} & \cdots & \frac{m-1}{m} & 1 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & \frac{1}{m} & 1 \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} B_0^m(t) \\ B_1^m(t) \\ \vdots \\ B_{m-1}^m(t) \\ B_m^m(t) \end{pmatrix}$$

The matrix is upper-triangular with non-zero diagonal elements and so it is invertible. Hence the Bernstein polynomials form a basis of the vector space of polynomials of degree $\leq m$.

From the explicit formulas given in the matrix above it easy to derive its elements for $m = 2, 3$.

5. The easiest way to write this is to use the shorthand

$$x = \alpha^\mathsf{T} p_1, y = \beta^\mathsf{T} p_2$$

where

$$\alpha^\mathsf{T} = (\alpha_{m_1}, \ldots, \alpha_1, \alpha_0), p_1^\mathsf{T} = (1, t, \ldots, t^{m_1-1}, t^{m_1}), \beta^\mathsf{T} = (\beta_{m_2}, \ldots, \beta_1, \beta_0), p_2^\mathsf{T} = (1, t, \ldots, t^{m_2-1}, t^{m_2}).$$

We know that

$$p_1 = B_1 b$$

where

$$b^\mathsf{T} = (B_0^m, \ldots, B_{m-1}^m, B_m^m)$$

and B_1 is the matrix whose explicit form we derived in (4) (since $m_1 \leq m$ it would be a $(m_1 + 1) \times (m + 1)$ submatrix of B). In the same way

$$p_2 = B_2 b.$$

where B_2 is an $(m_2+1)\times(m+1)$ submatrix of B. Hence

$$x = \alpha^\mathsf{T} B_1 b, \qquad y = \beta^\mathsf{T} B_2 b.$$

The coefficients of x (resp. y) in terms of the Bernstein polynomials are given by $\alpha^\mathsf{T} B_1$ (resp. $\beta^\mathsf{T} B_2$). If we denote $(x(t), y(t))$ by $C(t)$ then any point on the curve is

$$C(t) = B_0^m(t)b_0 + B_1^m(t)b_1 + \cdots + B_m^m(t)b_m.$$

$b_0, b_1, \ldots, b_m$ are fixed points. We have already shown that

$$B_0^m(t) + B_1^m(t) + \cdots + B_m^m(t) = 1, \quad \text{for all } t.$$

and we know that $B_i^m(t) \geq 0$. Since $C(t)$ is a weighted average $b_0, b_1, \ldots, b_m$ these points are not generally on the curve. The only exception is b_0 and b_m since for $t=0$, $B_0^m(0)=1$, $B_k^m(0)=0$ for $k>1$, while for $t=1$, $B_m^m(1)=1$, $B_k^m(0)=0$ for $k<m$.

Problem 3.5:
Write A in block form

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} \mathbf{0}^\mathsf{T} & -a_n \\ \boldsymbol{I}_{n-1} & -\boldsymbol{a} \end{bmatrix}$$

where $\boldsymbol{a}^\mathsf{T} = (a_{n-1}, a_{n-2}, \ldots, a_2, a_1)$ (we use bold lower case for vector, bold upper case for matrices). We can write P two different ways

$$P = \begin{bmatrix} \boldsymbol{c}^\mathsf{T} & p_{1n} \\ \boldsymbol{Q} & \boldsymbol{q} \end{bmatrix}$$

or

$$P = \begin{bmatrix} \boldsymbol{b} & \boldsymbol{R} \\ p_{n1} & \boldsymbol{r}^\mathsf{T} \end{bmatrix}.$$

Note that $\boldsymbol{q}, \boldsymbol{r}$ are $(n-1)\times 1$ vectors with a common $n-1$th element. Also $\boldsymbol{Q}, \boldsymbol{R}$ share the central submatrix of P obtained by excluding rows $1, n$ and colums $1, n$. We must have

$$PA^\mathsf{T} = AP$$

or

$$\begin{bmatrix} \boldsymbol{c}^\mathsf{T} & p_{1n} \\ \boldsymbol{Q} & \boldsymbol{q} \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \mathbf{0} & \boldsymbol{I} \\ -a_n & -\boldsymbol{a}^\mathsf{T} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} \mathbf{0}^\mathsf{T} & -a_n \\ \boldsymbol{I} & -\boldsymbol{a} \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} \boldsymbol{b} & \boldsymbol{R} \\ p_{n1} & \boldsymbol{r}^\mathsf{T} \end{bmatrix}.$$

This can be simplified to

$$\begin{bmatrix} -p_{1n}a_n & \boldsymbol{c}^\mathsf{T} - p_{1n}\boldsymbol{a}^\mathsf{T} \\ -a_n\boldsymbol{q} & \boldsymbol{Q} - \boldsymbol{q}\boldsymbol{a}^\mathsf{T} \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} -p_{n1}a_n & -a_n\boldsymbol{r}^\mathsf{T} \\ \boldsymbol{b} - p_{n1}\boldsymbol{a} & \boldsymbol{R} - \boldsymbol{a}\boldsymbol{r}^\mathsf{T} \end{bmatrix}$$

We obtain the following conditions:

$$\begin{aligned} -p_{1n}a_n &= -p_{n1}a_n, \quad p_{1n} = p_{n1} \\ \boldsymbol{c}^\mathsf{T} - p_{1n}\boldsymbol{a}^\mathsf{T} &= -a_n\boldsymbol{r}^\mathsf{T} \\ \boldsymbol{b} - p_{n1}\boldsymbol{a} &= -a_n\boldsymbol{q} \\ \boldsymbol{Q} - \boldsymbol{q}\boldsymbol{a}^\mathsf{T} &= \boldsymbol{R} - \boldsymbol{a}\boldsymbol{r}^\mathsf{T} \end{aligned}$$

If we write the explicit form for $\boldsymbol{q}\boldsymbol{a}^\mathsf{T} - \boldsymbol{a}\boldsymbol{r}^\mathsf{T}$ we obtain

$$\begin{bmatrix} (p_{2n} - p_{n2})a_{n-1} & p_{2n}a_{n-2} - a_{n-1}p_{n3} & \cdots & p_{2n}a_2 - a_{n-1}p_{n,n-1} & p_{2n}a_1 - a_{n-1}p_{n,n} \\ p_3 n a_{n-1} - a_{n-2}p_{n2} & (p_{3n} - p_{n3})a_{n-2} & \cdots & p_{2n}a_2 - a_{n-2}p_{n,n-1} & p_{3n}a_1 - a_{n-2}p_{n,n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ p_{n-1,n}a_{n-1} - a_2p_{n,2} & p_{n-1,n}a_{n-2} - a_2p_{n,3} & \cdots & (p_{n-1,n} - p_{n,n-1})a_2 & p_{n-1,n}a_1 - a_2p_{n,n} \\ p_{n,n}a_{n-1} - a_1p_{n,2} & p_{n,n}a_{n-2} - a_1p_{n,3} & \cdots & p_{n,n}a_2 - a_1p_{n,n-1} & 0 \end{bmatrix}.$$

From the construction of $\boldsymbol{Q}, \boldsymbol{R}$ we obtain differences of elements of P whose indices sum to the same total:

$$\begin{bmatrix} p_{21}-p_{12} & p_{22}-p_{13} & \cdots & p_{2,n-2}-p_{1,n-1} & p_{2,n-1}-p_{1,n} \\ p_{31}-p_{22} & p_{32}-p_{23} & \cdots & p_{3,n-2}-p_{2,n-1} & p_{3,n-1}-p_{2,n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ p_{n-1,1}-p_{n-2,2} & p_{n-1,2}-p_{n-2,3} & \cdots & p_{n-1,n-2}-p_{n-2,n-1} & p_{n-1,n-1}-p_{n-2,n} \\ p_{n,1}-p_{n-1,2} & p_{n,2}-p_{n-1,3} & \cdots & p_{n,n-2}-p_{n-1,n-1} & p_{n,n-1}-p_{n-1,n} \end{bmatrix}.$$

From the equality of $\boldsymbol{Q}-\boldsymbol{R}$ and $\boldsymbol{q}\boldsymbol{a}^\mathsf{T}-\boldsymbol{a}\boldsymbol{r}^\mathsf{T}$ we must have $p_{n,n-1}=p_{n-1,n}$. But then the penultimate diagonal element of $\boldsymbol{q}\boldsymbol{a}^\mathsf{T}-\boldsymbol{a}\boldsymbol{r}^\mathsf{T}$ must be zero and so we must have $p_{n-1,n-2}=p_{n-2,n-1}$. Following the same procedure we obtain additional symmetric conditions for some elements of P. To show that all of P is symmetric we sum elements of $\boldsymbol{Q}-\boldsymbol{R}$. For example.

$$p_{n,n-2}-p_{n-1,n-1}+p_{n-1,n-1}-p_{n-2,n}$$

must be equal to

$$p_{n,n}a_2-a_1p_{n,n-1}+p_{n-1,n}a_1-a_2p_{n,n}=0.$$

Therefore we must have $p_{n,n-2}=p_{n-2,n}$. Following the same steps we conclude that P is symmetric. However, even with this restriction,

$$PA^\mathsf{T}=P^\mathsf{T}A^\mathsf{T}=AP$$

does not have a unique solution. Since A is invertible we can choose any symmetric matrix S and then $P=A^{-1}S$ is a solution. Also note that since

$$PA^\mathsf{T}=AP\Rightarrow(bP)A^\mathsf{T}=A(bP),\quad b\in K$$

this problem is **scale invariant**.

The conditions given are that all elements above the antidiagonal are zero while for p_{ij} where $i+j=n+k$ $(k\geq 0)$ all are equal. From this condition $\boldsymbol{Q}-\boldsymbol{R}=\boldsymbol{O}$ where $\boldsymbol{O}$ is the zero matrix. The same is true for all elements of $\boldsymbol{q}\boldsymbol{a}^\mathsf{T}-\boldsymbol{a}\boldsymbol{r}^\mathsf{T}$, so from the last row we obtain

$$p_{n,i}=\frac{p_{n,n}a_{n-i+1}}{a_1},\quad i=2,3,\ldots,n-1.$$

Repeating the same procedure for all other rows we obtain a matrix with the following structure:

$$\begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \frac{p_{n,n}a_n}{a_1} \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & \frac{p_{n,n}a_n}{a_1} & \frac{p_{n,n}a_{n-1}}{a_1} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & \frac{p_{n,n}a_n}{a_1} & \cdots & \frac{p_{n,n}a_3}{a_1} & \frac{p_{n,n}a_2}{a_1} \\ \frac{p_{n,n}a_n}{a_1} & \frac{p_{n,n}a_{n-1}}{a_1} & \cdots & \frac{p_{n,n}a_2}{a_1} & p_{n,n} \end{bmatrix}.$$

If we factor out $p_{n,n}/a_1$ we obtain the simpler form

$$\begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & a_n \\ 0 & 0 & \cdots & a_n & a_{n-1} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots \\ 0 & a_n & \cdots & a_3 & a_2 \\ a_n & a_{n-1} & \cdots & a_2 & a_1 \end{bmatrix}.$$

It is easy to check that this satisfies the similarity condition. For example if $n = 5$,

$$PA^{\mathsf{T}} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & a_5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & a_5 & a_4 \\ 0 & 0 & a_5 & a_4 & a_3 \\ 0 & a_5 & a_4 & a_3 & a_2 \\ a_5 & a_4 & a_3 & a_2 & a_1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 \\ -a_5 & -a_4 & -a_3 & -a_2 & -a_1 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$= \begin{bmatrix} -a_5^2 & -a_4a_5 & -a_3a_5 & -a_2a_5 & -a_1a_5 \\ -a_4a_5 & -a_4^2 & -a_3a_4 & -a_2a_4 & -a_1a_4 + a_5 \\ -a_3a_5 & -a_3a_4 & -a_3^2 & -a_2a_3 + a_5 & -a_1a_3 + a_4 \\ -a_2a_5 & -a_2a_4 & -a_2a_3 + a_5 & -a_2^2 + a_4 & -a_1a_2 + a_3 \\ -a_1a_5 & -a_1a_4 + a_5 & -a_1a_3 + a_4 & -a_1a_2 + a_3 & -a_1^2 + a_2 \end{bmatrix}$$

and

$$AP = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -a_5 \\ 1 & 0 & 0 & 0 & -a_4 \\ 0 & 1 & 0 & 0 & -a_3 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 & 0 & -a_2 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 1 & -a_1 \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 & a_5 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & a_5 & a_4 \\ 0 & 0 & a_5 & a_4 & a_3 \\ 0 & a_5 & a_4 & a_3 & a_2 \\ a_5 & a_4 & a_3 & a_2 & a_1 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$= \begin{bmatrix} -a_5^2 & -a_4a_5 & -a_3a_5 & -a_2a_5 & -a_1a_5 \\ -a_4a_5 & -a_4^2 & -a_3a_4 & -a_2a_4 & -a_1a_4 + a_5 \\ -a_3a_5 & -a_3a_4 & -a_3^2 & -a_2a_3 + a_5 & -a_1a_3 + a_4 \\ -a_2a_5 & -a_2a_4 & -a_2a_3 + a_5 & -a_2^2 + a_4 & -a_1a_2 + a_3 \\ -a_1a_5 & -a_1a_4 + a_5 & -a_1a_3 + a_4 & -a_1a_2 + a_3 & -a_1^2 + a_2 \end{bmatrix}.$$

2. Since $P^{-1}P = I$ we want the rows of P^{-1} to form a dual basis to the columns of P. Since P has zero elements above the antidiagonal set the elements of P^{-1} below the antidiagonal to zero. The product of the last row of P^{-1} times the last column of P is $p'_{n1}a_n = 1$ and so $p'_{n1} = 1/a_n$ (the product of the last row o P^{-1} with all other columns of P is zero by construction). Then for the penultimate row of P^{-1} we have the following two conditions:

$$p'_{n-1,2}a_n = 1, p'_{n-1,1}a_n + p'_{n-1,2}a_{n-1} = 0.$$

Hence $p'_{n-1,2} = 1/a_n$ and $p'_{n-1,1} = -a_{n-1}/a_n^2$. Continuing in this manner we obtain expressions that involve powers of a_n in the denominator and products of the as. Since $a_n = 1$ the inverse contains only integers. An example of the inverse for $n = 5$ is shown below:

$$\begin{bmatrix} \frac{-a_1a_5^3+2a_2a_4a_5^2+a_3^2a_5^2-3a_3a_4^2a_5+a_4^4}{a_5^5} & \frac{-a_2a_5^2+2a_3a_4a_5-a_4^3}{a_5^4} & \frac{-a_3a_5+a_4^2}{a_5^3} & -\frac{a_4}{a_5^2} & \frac{1}{a_5} \\ \frac{-a_2a_5^2+2a_3a_4a_5-a_4^3}{a_5^4} & \frac{-a_3a_5+a_4^2}{a_5^3} & -\frac{a_4}{a_5^2} & \frac{1}{a_5} & 0 \\ \frac{-a_3a_5+a_4^2}{a_5^3} & -\frac{a_4}{a_5^2} & \frac{1}{a_5} & 0 & 0 \\ -\frac{a_4}{a_5^2} & \frac{1}{a_5} & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ \frac{1}{a_5} & 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

Problem 3.6:

1.

$$L_A(b_1B_1 + b_2B_2) = A(b_1B_1 + b_2B_2) = b_1AB_1 + b_2AB_2 = b_1L_A(B_1) + b_2L_A(B_2).$$

$$R_A(b_1B_1 + b_2B_2) = (b_1B_1 + b_2B_2)A = b_1B_1A + b_2B_2A = b_1R_A(B_1) + b_2R)A(B_2).$$

$$L_AR_B(C) = L_A(CB) = ACB, R_BL_A(C) = R_B(AC) = ACB.$$

2. From the definition of the inverse of a linear map

$$L_A^{-1}L_A(B) = B.$$

Therefore

$$L_A^{-1}AB = B \Rightarrow L_A^{-1}(AB) = A^{-1}(AB) = L_{A^{-1}}(AB).$$

In the same way

$$R_A^{-1}R_A(B) = B \Rightarrow R_A^{-1}BA = (BA)A^{-1} = R_{A^{-1}}(BA).$$

If $A = PBP^{-1}$ then

$$L_A(C) = AC = PBP^{-1}C = PBL_P^{-1}(C) = PL_BL_P^{-1}(C) = L_PL_BL_P^{-1}(C)$$

and so $L_A = L_P \circ L_B \circ L_P^{-1}$. In the same way we can prove the second identity.

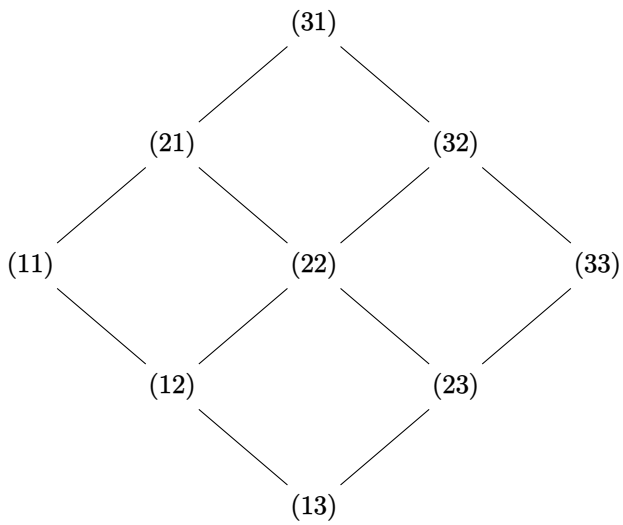
3. The ordering given is partial as it only generates an order for some of the matrices. If the first coordinate is fixed then $E_{ij} \prec E_{ik}$ for $n \geq j > k \geq 1$. From this we have the following partial orders:

$$E_{13} \prec E_{12} \prec E_{11}, \quad E_{23} \prec E_{22}, \prec E_{21} \qquad E_{33} \prec E_{32} \prec E_{31}.$$

If the second coordinate is fixed then $E_{ij} \prec E_{hj}$ for $1 \leq i < h \leq n$. We can write

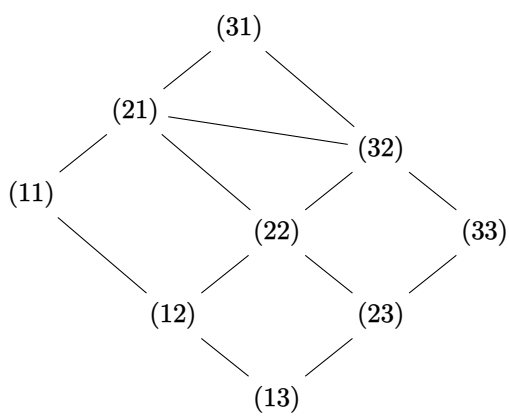
$$E_{11} \prec E_{21} \prec E_{31}, \quad E_{12} \prec E_{22} \prec E_{32}, \qquad E_{13} \prec E_{23} \prec E_{33}.$$

From these we obtain the following Hasse diagram:

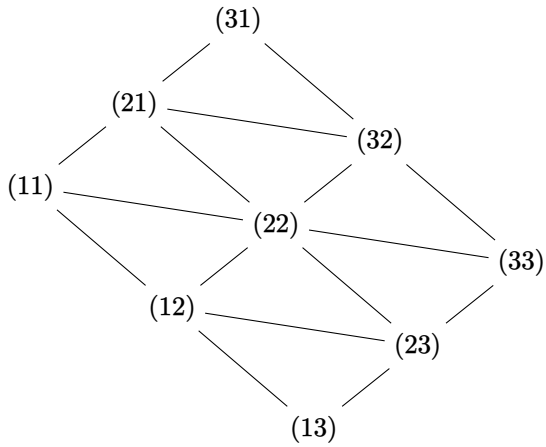


This is a partial order diagram since a number of nodes are on the same level (e.g. (21) and (32)).

There are many different total orders that we can derive from this partial order. For example suppose we decide that $E_{21} \succ E_{32}$. Then the last diagram is modified to:



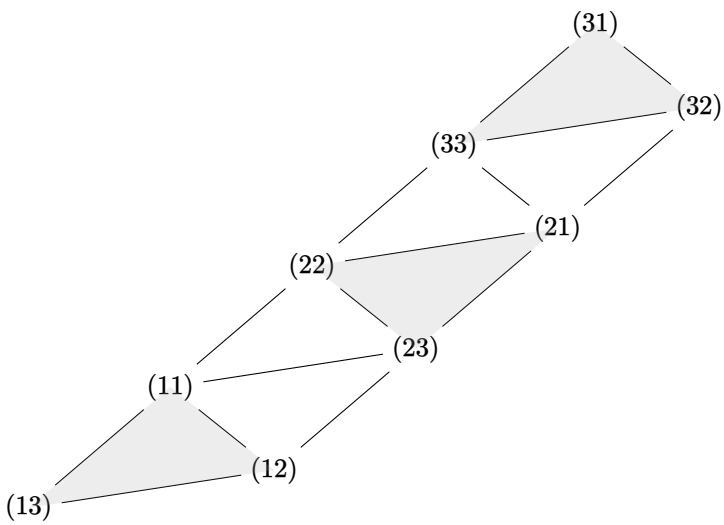
Now the partial order has been extended but we still have not arrived at a total order diagram. To do this lets set $E_{22} \succ E_{33}$ and $E_{12} \succ E_{23}$. Now we have



which is a total order diagram. A summary of this total order is shown in the following equation

$$(13), (23), (12), (33), (22), (11), (32), (21), (31).$$

The order given in this exercise is a total order with the following Hasse diagram:



It is easy to check that the partial order given is preserved. For any i, $E_{ij} \prec E_{ik}$ if $j > k$. These are the three triangles highlighted in the diagram above. Also for any j, $E_{ij} \prec E_{hj}$ if $h > i$ as can be easily checked.

4. We have shown that L_A is a linear map from $M_n \to M_n$. Therefore it can be uniquely determined by its action on the set of basis matrices E_{ij}. From the property $E_{ij}E_{kl} = E_{il}\delta_{jk}$ we have

$$\begin{aligned} L_A E_{ij} = AE_{ij} &= \left(\sum_{k,l} a_{kl}E_{kl}\right) E_{ij} = \sum_{k,l} a_{kl}E_{kj}\delta_{li} \\ &= \sum_{k} a_{ki}E_{kj}. \end{aligned}$$

Using the representation of linear maps by matrices, each column of the matrix should contain the coefficients of the E_{kj}. The complication here that each basis vector (usually) has a single index while here the basis matrices have two indices. Hence the indices of the E matrices do not produce a straightforward order in the same way that the indices of the basis vectors $v_1, v_2, \ldots, v_m$ do. We can overcome this difficulty by using the total order given in the problem. Its (partial) explicit form is shown below:

$$E_{1n} \prec E_{1n-1} \prec \cdots \prec E_{11} \prec E_{2n} \prec E_{2n-1} \prec \cdots \prec E_{21} \cdots E_{nn} \prec E_{nn-1} \prec \cdots \prec E_{n1}.$$

Using this scheme the transformation matrix has the following structure

$$\begin{array}{c}
 \\ E_{1n} \\ E_{1n-1} \\ \vdots \\ E_{11} \\ E_{2n} \\ E_{2n-1} \\ \vdots \\ E_{21} \\ \vdots \\ E_{nn} \\ E_{nn-1} \\ \vdots \\ E_{n1}
\end{array}
\begin{array}{c}
\begin{array}{ccccccccccccc}
L_A E_{1n} & L_A E_{1n-1} & \cdots & L_A E_{11} & L_A E_{2n} & L_A E_{2n-1} & \cdots & L_A E_{21} & \cdots & L_A E_{nn} & L_A E_{nn-1} & \cdots & L_A E_{n1}
\end{array} \\
\begin{bmatrix}
a_{11} & 0 & \cdots & 0 & a_{12} & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & a_{1n} & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\
0 & a_{11} & \cdots & 0 & 0 & a_{12} & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & 0 & a_{1n} & \cdots & 0 \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{11} & 0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{12} & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{1n} \\
a_{21} & 0 & \cdots & 0 & a_{22} & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & a_{2n} & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\
0 & a_{21} & \cdots & 0 & 0 & a_{22} & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & 0 & a_{2n} & \cdots & 0 \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{21} & 0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{22} & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{2n} \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
a_{n1} & 0 & \cdots & 0 & a_{n2} & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & a_{nn} & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\
0 & a_{n1} & \cdots & 0 & 0 & a_{n2} & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & 0 & a_{nn} & \cdots & 0 \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{n1} & 0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{n2} & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{nn}
\end{bmatrix}
\end{array}$$

If we interpret this structure as a "matrix-of-matrices" then each matrix element is the product of the identity matrix I with the corresponding element of A. The result is $A \otimes I$.

For R_A

$$\begin{aligned}
R_A E_{ij} = E_{ij} A = E_{ij} \left(\sum_{k,l} a_{kl} E_{kl} \right) &= \sum_{k,l} a_{kl} E_{il} \delta_{jk} \\
&= \sum_{l} a_{jl} E_{il}.
\end{aligned}$$

Now the matrix structure is different:

$$
\begin{array}{c}
 \\ E_{1n} \\ E_{1n-1} \\ \vdots \\ E_{11} \\ E_{2n} \\ E_{2n-1} \\ \vdots \\ E_{21} \\ \vdots \\ E_{nn} \\ E_{nn-1} \\ \vdots \\ E_{n1}
\end{array}
\begin{array}{c}
\begin{array}{ccccccccccccc}
L_A E_{1n} & L_A E_{1n-1} & \cdots & L_A E_{11} & L_A E_{2n} & L_A E_{2n-1} & \cdots & L_A E_{21} & \cdots & L_A E_{nn} & L_A E_{nn-1} & \cdots & L_A E_{n1}
\end{array} \\
\begin{bmatrix}
a_{nn} & a_{n-1n} & \cdots & a_{1n} & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\
a_{nn-1} & a_{n-1n-1} & \cdots & a_{1n-1} & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
a_{n1} & a_{n-11} & \cdots & a_{11} & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\
0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & a_{nn} & a_{n-1m} & \cdots & a_{1n} & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\
0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & a_{nn-1} & a_{n-1n-1} & \cdots & a_{1n-1} & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
0 & 0 & \cdots & a_{21} & a_{n1} & a_{n-11} & \cdots & a_{11} & \cdots & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & a_{nn} & a_{n-1n} & \cdots & a_{1n} \\
0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & a_{nn-1} & a_{n-1n-1} & \cdots & a_{1n-1} \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & 0 & 0 & \cdots & 0 & \cdots & a_{n1} & a_{n-11} & \cdots & a_{11}
\end{bmatrix}
\end{array}
$$

In this case we have a "matrix-of-matrices" with only diagonal elements. These are all equal to

$$
\begin{bmatrix}
a_{nn} & a_{n-1n} & \cdots & a_{1n} \\
a_{nn-1} & a_{n-1n-1} & \cdots & a_{1n-1} \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
a_{n1} & a_{n-11} & \cdots & a_{11}
\end{bmatrix}
$$

The permutation matrix R has the property

$$
Rx = \begin{bmatrix} e_n^\mathsf{T} x \\ e_{n-1}^\mathsf{T} x \\ \vdots \\ e_2^\mathsf{T} x \\ e_1^\mathsf{T} x \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} x_n \\ x_{n-1} \\ \vdots \\ x_2 \\ x_1 \end{bmatrix}, \quad x^\mathsf{T} R = x^\mathsf{T} R^\mathsf{T} = (Rx)^\mathsf{T}.
$$

Hence,

$$
RA^\mathsf{T} = \begin{bmatrix}
a_{1n} & a_{2n} & \cdots & a_{nn} \\
a_{1n-1} & a_{2n-1} & \cdots & a_{nn-1} \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
a_{11} & a_{21} & \cdots & a_{n1}
\end{bmatrix}
$$

and

$$
RA^\mathsf{T} R = \begin{bmatrix}
a_{nn} & a_{n-1n} & \cdots & a_{1n} \\
a_{nn-1} & a_{n-1n-1} & \cdots & a_{1n-1} \\
\vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\
a_{n1} & a_{n-11} & \cdots & a_{11}
\end{bmatrix}
$$

completing the derivation.

5. Using the composite index for the Kronecker product

$$(A \otimes I)_{n(i-1)+k,n(j-1)+l} = A_{ij} I_{kl} = a_{ij} \mathbb{1}_{j \geq i} \delta_{kl}.$$

If $A \otimes I$ is upper triangular we must have

$$n(j-1) + l < n(i-1) + k \Leftrightarrow (A \otimes I)_{n(i-1)+k,n(j-1)+l} = 0.$$

Since $\delta_{kl} = 0$ if $k \neq l$ the inequality is equivalent to $j < i$. If this condition holds then $\mathbb{1}_{j \geq i} = 0$ and so the proof for L_A is complete.

From the matrix expression of $RA^{\mathsf{T}}R$ it is clear that this is an upper triangular matrix. Since $I \otimes RA^{\mathsf{T}}R$ is a diagonal matrix of matrices, all elements below the diagonal are zero.

References

J.H. Gallier and J. Quaintance. *Linear Algebra And Optimization With Applications To Machine Learning - Volume I: Linear Algebra For Computer Vision, Robotics, And Machine Learning*. World Scientific Publishing Company, 2020. ISBN 9789811206412. URL https://books.google.co.uk/books?id=lMPVDwAAQBAJ.